

Multuser Environment

CPE 241 RDBMS
Week 9

Agenda

Transaction

Assertion & Trigger

Permission

View

Transaction

a sequence of operations performed as a single logical unit of work

Includes many operations (insert, update, delete)

Key Properties of Transactions: ACID

1. **Atomicity** – All operations in a transaction are completed successfully, or none are.
2. **Consistency** – A transaction takes the database from one valid state to another.
3. **Isolation** – Transactions are isolated from one another until they are finished.
4. **Durability** – Once a transaction is committed, the changes are permanent, even in case of a system failure.

Common Read Anomalies

Dirty Read

You read data that another transaction hasn't committed yet (and might roll back).

- Only allowed in **Read Uncommitted**.

Non-Repeatable Read

You read the same row twice, and the value is different because another transaction updated it in between.

- Prevented from **Repeatable Read** upwards.

Phantom Read

You run a query twice (e.g., `SELECT * FROM orders WHERE price > 1000`), and the second time, **new rows appear** that match the criteria.

- Only prevented by **Serializable**.

Four Isolation Levels (ANSI SQL Standard)

Isolation Level	Allows Dirty Read	Allows Non-Repeatable Read	Allows Phantom Read
Read Uncommitted	✓ Yes	✓ Yes	✓ Yes
Read Committed	✗ No	✓ Yes	✓ Yes
Repeatable Read	✗ No	✗ No	✓ Yes
Serializable	✗ No	✗ No	✗ No

Read Uncommitted: You're peeking into inventory even while someone else is changing it — risky but fast.

Read Committed: You only see finalized inventory updates.

Repeatable Read: You see the same stock levels no matter how many times you look during your task.

Serializable: You lock the whole warehouse — nobody else can update or even insert until you finish.

Autocommit

In many RDBMS (like MySQL), **autocommit is enabled by default**. This means:

- Every individual SQL statement (like **INSERT**, **UPDATE**, **DELETE**) is treated as a separate transaction.
- It is **automatically committed** immediately after it runs.
- You cannot **ROLLBACK** because the change is already saved.

To use **START TRANSACTION**, **SAVEPOINT**, **ROLLBACK**, and **COMMIT** effectively, you need to **turn off autocommit**, otherwise your statements are committed one by one.

MySQL

```
SET autocommit = 0;
```

```
START TRANSACTION;
```

```
-- do something
```

```
COMMIT; -- or ROLLBACK;
```

```
SET autocommit = 1;
```

Basic Transaction Operations

Operation	Description
BEGIN / START TRANSACTION	Starts a new transaction.
COMMIT	Saves all the changes made in the transaction permanently.
ROLLBACK	Undoes all the changes made in the transaction (back to the last COMMIT or beginning).
SAVEPOINT	Sets a point within a transaction to which you can later roll back.
ROLLBACK TO SAVEPOINT	Rolls back to a specific savepoint.
SET TRANSACTION ISOLATION LEVEL	Sets the isolation level for the current transaction.

Examples

-- Start the transaction
START TRANSACTION;

-- Step 1: Deduct from Account A
UPDATE accounts SET balance = balance - 500 WHERE account_id = 1;

-- Step 2: Add to Account B
UPDATE accounts SET balance = balance + 500 WHERE account_id = 2;

-- If all good, commit the transaction
COMMIT;

ROLLBACK; -- Undoes both UPDATES if error occurs

Savepoint

START TRANSACTION;

UPDATE products SET stock = stock - 10 WHERE id = 101;

SAVEPOINT **sp1**;

UPDATE products SET stock = stock - 5 WHERE id = 102;

-- Suppose we want to undo only the second update

ROLLBACK TO **sp1**;

-- Commit the rest

COMMIT;

ISOLATION LEVEL

```
SET TRANSACTION ISOLATION LEVEL REPEATABLE READ;
```

```
START TRANSACTION;
```

```
-- Your queries here
```

```
COMMIT;
```

How Locks Work with Transactions

Isolation Level	Locking Behavior
Read Uncommitted	No locks → allows dirty reads
Read Committed	Shared locks for read, exclusive for write, released after each query
Repeatable Read	Shared locks remain for the entire transaction
Serializable	Strictest → full range locks to simulate serial execution

Lock Type	Description
Shared Lock (S Lock)	Allows reading data. Other transactions can also read but not write.
Exclusive Lock (X Lock)	Allows writing data. No other transaction can read or write the locked data.
Row-level Lock	Locks a single row (more concurrent-friendly).
Table-level Lock	Locks the entire table (simpler but less concurrency).

Locking Behavior in Transactions

Operation	Lock Type Applied
SELECT	No lock or Shared Lock , depending on isolation level
SELECT ... FOR UPDATE	Exclusive Lock (row-level)
INSERT, UPDATE, DELETE	Exclusive Lock on affected rows
SELECT at SERIALIZABLE level	Range locks or table locks to prevent phantom reads

Assertion and Trigger

Assertion is a **database constraint** that ensures a **condition is always true**

Do we know what a constraint is? Constraint is on its own table, Assertion can be on other tables

```
CREATE ASSERTION check_salary_limit
```

```
CHECK (
```

```
NOT EXISTS (
```

```
SELECT * FROM employees
```

```
WHERE salary > 100000
```

```
)
```

```
);
```

****But many dbms does not support assertion!**

Check Constraint

```
CREATE TABLE employee (  
    id INT PRIMARY KEY AUTO_INCREMENT,  
    name VARCHAR(100),  
    position VARCHAR(50),  
    salary DECIMAL(10,2),  
    CHECK (salary <= 100000) -- Works in MySQL 8.0+ only  
);
```

Trigger in MySQL

A **Trigger** is a piece of code that is **automatically executed in response to a specific event** on a table (such as **INSERT**, **UPDATE**, **DELETE**).

Triggers help **enforce rules** and **automate behavior** at the database level.

```
CREATE TRIGGER salary_check_before_insert
BEFORE INSERT ON employees
FOR EACH ROW
BEGIN
  IF NEW.salary > 100000 THEN
    SIGNAL SQLSTATE '45000'
    SET MESSAGE_TEXT = 'Salary exceeds the limit!';
  END IF;
END;
//
```


Trigger Timing & Event

Type	When it Executes
BEFORE	Before the actual operation is executed. Useful for validation or modification.
AFTER	After the operation is completed. Useful for logging or auditing.

Type	Description
INSERT	Trigger fires when a new row is inserted.
UPDATE	Trigger fires when a row is updated.
DELETE	Trigger fires when a row is deleted.



Example of Each Trigger in MySQL

```
CREATE TRIGGER trg_before_insert_employee  
  
BEFORE INSERT ON employee  
  
FOR EACH ROW  
  
BEGIN  
  
    -- Modify or validate data before insert  
  
    IF NEW.salary > 100000 THEN  
  
        SIGNAL SQLSTATE '45000'  
  
        SET MESSAGE_TEXT = 'Salary too high!';  
  
    END IF;  
  
END;
```

AFTER INSERT

```
CREATE TRIGGER trg_after_insert_employee  
  
AFTER INSERT ON employee  
  
FOR EACH ROW  
  
BEGIN  
  
    INSERT INTO employee_log (emp_id, action, log_time)  
  
    VALUES (NEW.id, 'INSERTED', NOW());  
  
END;
```

MySQL Limitations

MySQL supports **only row-level triggers** (no statement-level triggers).

You **cannot create multiple triggers of the same type on the same table**. (e.g., only one **BEFORE INSERT** per table)

Triggers **can't call COMMIT or ROLLBACK**.

Privileges

Permission

Privilege	Description
SELECT	Read data
INSERT	Add new data
UPDATE	Modify existing data
DELETE	Remove data
CREATE	Create tables or databases
DROP	Delete tables or databases
ALTER	Modify structure of tables
ALL PRIVILEGES	All of the above

Example

-- Create a new user

```
CREATE USER 'student'@'localhost' IDENTIFIED BY 'studentpass';
```

-- Grant SELECT and INSERT on a specific table

```
GRANT SELECT, INSERT ON mydb.employee TO 'student'@'localhost';
```

-- To grant all privileges on a database

```
GRANT ALL PRIVILEGES ON mydb.* TO 'adminuser'@'localhost';
```

-- Revoke privilege

```
REVOKE INSERT ON mydb.employee FROM 'student'@'localhost';
```

```
FLUSH PRIVILEGES;
```

Views

A **View** is a **virtual table** based on the result of an SQL query. It **does not store data itself**, but provides a way to:

- Simplify complex queries
- Restrict access to certain columns or rows (for security)
- Present data in a specific format
- Not storing data
- Access data from original table
- Can be used like a table

```
CREATE VIEW view_name AS  
SELECT columns  
FROM tables  
WHERE conditions;
```

```
UPDATE employee_public SET position = 'Team Lead' WHERE id = 1; -- can be updated if only one table  
GRANT SELECT ON employee_public TO 'student'@'localhost'; -- can grant privilege like table
```

Example: Hide Salary in public view

```
CREATE TABLE employee (  
  id INT PRIMARY KEY AUTO_INCREMENT,  
  name VARCHAR(100),  
  position VARCHAR(50),  
  salary DECIMAL(10,2)  
);
```

```
CREATE VIEW employee_public  
AS  
SELECT id, name, position  
FROM employee;
```


Role-based View – Sales Manager

```
CREATE TABLE employee (  
    id INT PRIMARY KEY AUTO_INCREMENT,  
    name VARCHAR(100),  
    position VARCHAR(50),  
    department VARCHAR(50),  
    salary DECIMAL(10,2),  
    hire_date DATE  
);
```

```
CREATE VIEW sales_team_view AS  
SELECT id, name, position, department,  
    hire_date  
FROM employee  
WHERE department = 'Sales';
```

Dynamic Role-Based View Access

```
CREATE TABLE employee (  
  id INT PRIMARY KEY AUTO_INCREMENT,  
  name VARCHAR(100),  
  position VARCHAR(50),  
  department VARCHAR(50),  
  salary DECIMAL(10,2)  
);
```

```
CREATE TABLE manager (  
  username VARCHAR(50) PRIMARY KEY,  
  full_name VARCHAR(100),  
  department VARCHAR(50)  
);
```

```
INSERT INTO manager (username, full_name, department)  
VALUES ('sales_manager', 'Jane Smith', 'Sales');
```

```
CREATE VIEW department_employee_view AS  
SELECT e.id, e.name, e.position, e.department  
FROM employee e  
JOIN manager m ON e.department = m.department  
WHERE CURRENT_USER() = CONCAT(m.username,  
'@localhost');
```

```
CREATE USER 'sales_manager'@'localhost' IDENTIFIED BY 'pass123';  
GRANT SELECT ON department_employee_view TO  
'sales_manager'@'localhost';
```

- No need to create a new view per department
- No need to hardcode department names into views
- No access to base **employee** or **manager** tables

Other options

```
CREATE TABLE employee (  
  id INT PRIMARY KEY AUTO_INCREMENT,  
  name VARCHAR(100),  
  position VARCHAR(50), -- e.g., 'Manager', 'Engineer'  
  department VARCHAR(50),  
  salary DECIMAL(10,2),  
  is_manager BOOLEAN DEFAULT FALSE  
);
```

Pros:

- Simpler schema (only one table)
- Easier to update shared fields (e.g., salary, name, department)
- You can easily filter managers with `WHERE is_manager = TRUE`

Cons:

- May not scale well if managers need more metadata (e.g., usernames, roles, permissions)
- Harder to decouple business logic for manager-specific access

```
CREATE TABLE manager (  
  emp_id INT PRIMARY KEY,  
  username VARCHAR(50) UNIQUE,  
  FOREIGN KEY (emp_id) REFERENCES employee(id)  
);
```

Pros:

- Clean separation of manager identity and login
- Easier to store **login credentials**, **usernames**, and role-based metadata
- Supports more flexible role-based security setup (especially for views)

Cons:

- Slightly more complex queries (may need joins)
- You must ensure `emp_id` exists in `employee`

Generalized Role-based View

```
CREATE VIEW department_employee_view AS  
SELECT e.id, e.name, e.position, e.department  
FROM employee e  
JOIN manager m ON e.department = (SELECT department FROM employee WHERE id = m.emp_id)  
WHERE CURRENT_USER() = CONCAT(m.username, '@localhost');
```

SELECT ... FOR UPDATE in Views

What it does:

`SELECT ... FOR UPDATE` is used inside a transaction to **lock the selected rows**, so other transactions can't update them until the current one is committed or rolled back.

! But in MySQL:

You **cannot use `FOR UPDATE` on views directly** unless:

- The view is **updatable**
- It is based on **one base table**
- It doesn't include `DISTINCT`, `GROUP BY`, joins, or aggregate functions

```
START TRANSACTION;
```

```
-- This works if the view is updatable
```

```
SELECT * FROM sales_team_view WHERE id = 4 FOR UPDATE;
```

```
-- Modify something
```

```
UPDATE employee SET position = 'Senior Sales' WHERE id = 4;
```

```
COMMIT;
```